Evaluating the Impact of BBBP on Female Educational Outcomes in India

1. Problem Statement

This paper aims to evaluate the causal impact of the Beti Bachao, Beti Padhao (BBBP) scheme on female educational outcomes in rural India. Using district-level panel data, we implement a two-way fixed effects Difference-in-Differences design to estimate the effect of this targeted government intervention on women's education metrics. We focus on the effect on learning outcomes for girls in lower-primary classes, and on dropout likelihood for girls in transition classes. We want to determine the effectiveness of such centrally sponsored programs (that majorly focus on raising awareness) in influencing developmental indicators.

2. Motivation

In the years before 2015, India faced a persistent decline in the sex ratio at birth, driven by son preference and gender-biased investments in girls. To address this, the government launched the Beti Bachao Beti Padhao (BBBP) programme in 2015, combining limited financial incentives with large-scale awareness campaigns, community mobilisation, and behavioural messaging. This raises the question of whether awareness-driven programmes can meaningfully reduce gender inequality and improve outcomes for girls. Given the scale and cost of such interventions, evaluating their effectiveness is crucial for future policy design.

There has been some prior work done to analyse the effectiveness of BBBP. The National Council of Applied Economic Research (NCAER) undertook the task of evaluating the scheme's effect on awareness among target groups and concluded that the campaign successfully created awareness in general. Gupta et al. first evaluated the BBBP programme's early effects in

Haryana from its launch in 2015 through 2016, finding a significant monthly increase of 1.696 units in the sex ratio at birth ("Effectiveness of India's National Programme"). They later assessed the programme's medium-term impact up to 2019, reporting an annual increase of 7.42 units in the sex ratio at birth due to BBBP ("Combatting the Imbalance of Sex Ratio at Birth"). While these results seem to validate the success of the programme, there is also a wide body of literature critiquing the programme and its implementation.

Several evaluations argue that BBBP's implementation suffers from inefficient fund allocation, weak monitoring, and an overly communication-driven design. Agarwal et al. from the Indian School of Public Policy highlight that although the scheme fostered coordination among ministries, "lack of disaggregated data, poor monitoring, poor expenditure planning and sidelined focus on sectoral interventions have hindered the desired change and consistent results across states". Similarly, an ORF analysis points out the policy's disproportionate emphasis on mass media campaigns over substantive health and education interventions (Mukhopadhyay). A critical review in The Times of India further notes institutional gaps, including an INR 77-crore shortfall in released funds, weak district oversight, and nearly half the budget being directed toward publicity rather than meaningful on-ground support (Ghosh).

In this paper, we revisit the effectiveness of BBBP by focusing on its impact on girls' educational outcomes. Unlike our focus on education, the existing literature is largely focused on demographic indicators and shifts in SRB. As the programme's "Educate the Girl Child" component relies heavily on visibility, slogans, community engagement, and behavioural shifts rather than material subsidies, it provides a valuable opportunity to study whether awareness-based interventions can alter educational outcomes. Moreover, the studies mentioned previously focused only on the impact in Haryana and were sanctioned by the Ministry of

Women and Child Development. Our paper, therefore, contributes to the literature by providing an independent evaluation of the policy at the national level.

3. Analytical Framework

3.1 Theory: Demand, Supply, and the Economics of Girls' Education

Educational outcomes are shaped by both supply-side constraints and demand-side preferences, but for girls in India, the central constraint is predominantly demand-driven (Kingdon). From a supply perspective, reducing direct and indirect costs such as fees, uniforms, and travel distance can raise enrollment where access is limited (Ramaswami). Yet contemporary evidence shows that India has achieved near-universal school access, and basic infrastructure is no longer the binding constraint at primary levels (Ramaswami).

Demand-side factors, including parents' beliefs about private returns, opportunity costs, and gender norms, remain far more influential in determining girls' education (Kingdon). When schooling quality is poor, as indicated by the Annual Status of Education Report (ASER)'s persistent deficits in foundational learning (Ramaswami), perceived returns fall further, discouraging investment in daughters. Girls thus face a compounded disadvantage: norms already depress expected returns, and low-quality schooling reinforces the belief that educating daughters provides limited long-term benefit.

Because these constraints operate through beliefs and not infrastructure, information and norm-shifting interventions, rather than additional school construction, are likely to affect girls' educational trajectories.

3.2 Policy Implementation

BBBP is designed precisely around this insight. Unlike typical education schemes, BBBP does not expand physical schooling capacity but instead focuses on demand-side barriers to shift household perceptions.

The programme was rolled out in staggered phases:-

- **Phase I (2015-16):** Implemented in 100 "gender-critical" districts, selected using 2011 Child Sex Ratio (CSR) levels and declining CSR trends. Districts were mandated to carry out multi-sectoral convergence across health, education, and ICDS (Integrated Child Development Services, a flagship Government of India programme to improve the health, nutrition, and early childhood development of children and mothers).
- **Phase II (2016-17):** Expansion to 61 additional districts, also selected on CSR criteria. These districts were asked to implement the same components, but the guidelines note varying levels of resource allocation and state capacity.
- **Nationwide expansion (2018):** Extension to all 640 districts through (i) 244 districts receiving multisectoral interventions and (ii) 235 districts receiving media and outreach only.

We see that early phases involved multi-sectoral convergence, whereas later phases relied more heavily on Information, Education, and Communication (IEC) campaigns. This implies that treatment intensity differed across cohorts of districts, an important consideration for empirical identification.

3.3 Empirical Strategy

Because Phase I and Phase II had much clearer and stronger intervention intensity than the later nationwide components, which were heterogeneous and inconsistently implemented, we restrict our analysis to these two phases. The nationwide interventions are effectively absorbed by district fixed effects.

To estimate BBBP's impact on girls' education outcomes, we use a two-way fixed-effects Difference-in-Differences model on a district-by-year panel constructed from ASER microdata. Our identification relies on the standard parallel trends assumption: in the absence of BBBP, treated (Phase I and II) and never-treated districts would have followed similar trends.

It is important to note that due to constraints on data availability, our data jumps from 2014 to 2016, with data missing for 2015. Therefore, for Phase I (implemented in 2015) and Phase II (implemented in 2016), the pre- and post years in the data are the same. Due to this, we have used the same Post indicator for both phases. We elaborate further on the data in the next section.

Our unit of analysis differs across outcomes.

For learning outcomes, we estimate the model at the child-district-year level and look at the reading and math scores of girls in classes 1 to 3. Since ASER's reading and math assessments test the child's performance in foundational skills, it was most appropriate to test the scores for girls in lower primary classes.

Our main empirical specification for learning outcomes is:

$$Y_{idct} = \alpha + \beta_1(PhaseI_d \times Post_t) + \beta_2(PhaseII_d \times Post_t) + X'_{idct}\theta + \gamma_d + \delta_t + \varepsilon_{idct}$$

Here Y_{idct} is the reading or math proficiency score of girl i in district d, class c, year t. $PhaseI_d$ and $PhaseII_d$ indicate whether district d belonged to Phase I or Phase II. $Post_t$=1 for years ≥ 2015. γ_d and δ_t are district and year fixed effects. Moreover, we have clustered standard errors at the district level (level of treatment).

For dropout likelihood, the analysis is restricted to girls who report being out of school. As shown later, the descriptive patterns show sharp increases in dropout around Classes 5 and 8, so we run the regression separately for these transition points.

$$Dropout_{idt} = \alpha + \beta_1(PhaseI_d \times Post_t) + \beta_2(PhaseII_d \times Post_t) + X'_{idct}\theta + \gamma_d + \delta_t + \varepsilon_{idct}$$

Here $Dropout_{idt}$ equals 1 if girl i dropped out by Class 5 or Class 8, depending on the regression. Other variables are the same as above.

In both regressions, X'_{idct} represents controls. To reduce omitted variable bias, we have controlled for multiple variables:

Child controls: tuition attendance, private school indicator

Parental controls: whether the mother and father attended school

Wealth controls: pucca house, electricity connection, TV ownership

Village controls: pucca road, presence of primary/middle/secondary government schools

3.4 Limitations

Multiple factors limit our ability to justify the results as causal. BBBP was not randomly assigned: Phase I and II districts were selected precisely for their low or declining child sex

ratios. Since treated areas differed systematically from others in ways that controls and fixed effects cannot fully address, this introduces selection bias. DiD can correct for this only if the assumption of parallel trends between treated and untreated districts is met. We have not formally tested this, thus making our causal interpretation tentative. Spillovers are also likely, since BBBP's mass-media campaigns could reach neighbouring districts. These concerns constrain how cleanly we can isolate BBBP's true effect.

4. Data Sources

Our analysis uses household-level microdata from the Annual Status of Education Report (ASER), a nationally representative, citizen-led survey of rural India. Conducted by Pratham, ASER is distinctive because it is household-based, allowing coverage of all children, including those enrolled, absent, or out of school. It directly assesses foundational reading and arithmetic through simple one-on-one tests administered at home rather than relying on school-reported scores. ASER also records schooling status and enrolment for children aged 3-16, making it a comprehensive source of information on educational participation and learning outcomes across rural districts (ASER Survey).

4.1 Years of Data Used and Implications for Identification

We had access to ASER survey waves for the years 2008–2014, 2016, 2018, 2022, and 2024. It's important to note that we do not have data for 2015, the year when BBBP Phase I had begun, but Phase II had not yet started. As a result, the first post-treatment observation in our dataset is 2016. This means that Phase I and Phase II districts both appear as "treated" in the earliest post-period in our data. Therefore, our empirical strategy uses a common post-treatment indicator for both phases.

4.2 Overview of Variables (Harmonised to ASER 2024 Codebook)

ASER questionnaires and variable names vary across survey rounds, so we first standardised all waves to match the 2024 format, ensuring consistent naming and coding. After harmonising variables, we merged all years into a single household-level pooled cross-section. This restructuring was necessary to ensure comparability of schooling, demographic, and household characteristics over time.

The dataset provides four broad categories of information: geographic identifiers, household characteristics, child-level schooling and learning variables, and village-level infrastructure indicators.

The following tables summarise the descriptive statistics for the variables used in our analysis.

Table 1: District-Level Summary of BBBP Treatment Assignment

Treatment Category	Mean	Std. Dev.
Phase I District	0.139	0.346
Phase II District	0.088	0.283
Multisectoral Intervention	0.339	0.474
Media & Advocacy Intervention	0.342	0.475
Any BBBP Intervention (B3P)	0.901	0.298
Observations (Districts)	649	

Notes: Table reports means and standard deviations of district-level treatment variables. Statistics are computed after collapsing the dataset to unique districts (using `district_id`). `B3P = 1` indicates districts treated under any component of the Beti Bachao Beti Padhao (BBBP) programme.

Overall, about 14% of the districts in our sample received Phase I intervention, while 9% received Phase II. Combined with the Nationwide expansion, 90% of total districts had some sort of BBBP intervention, with only 10% as completely untreated.

Table 2: Summary Statistics of Scores by Class for Girls

Variable	Obs	Mean	Std. Dev.
Class 1			
Reading Score	299,231	1.989	1.009
Math Score	297,680	1.988	0.906
Class 2			
Reading Score	286,453	2.687	1.185
Math Score	285,309	2.560	0.977
Class 3			
Reading Score	286,239	3.278	1.261
Math Score	285,290	3.026	1.050

Notes: **Reading Score (read_code):** 1=Child could not read anything; 2=Child can identify letters; 3=Child can read words; 4=Child can read a Std. 1 level text; 5=Child can read a Std. 2 level text. **Math Score (math_code):** 1=Child could not do any arithmetic; 2=Child can recognise numbers 1-9; 3=Child can recognise numbers 11-99; 4=Child can do two-digit subtraction; 5=Child can do division (3-by-1 form).

The summary statistics show a clear gap between girls' grade level and their actual learning. In Class 1, average reading and math scores are only around 2 out of 5, indicating very basic recognition skills. Although scores rise in Classes 2 and 3, the improvement is modest. Even by Class 3, average reading (3.28) and math (3.03) remain far below grade-appropriate proficiency (5). This pattern reflects a broader learning deficit in rural India, with children progressing through grades without acquiring corresponding foundational skills, highlighting a persistent disconnect between schooling and learning for girls.

Table 3: Distribution of School Dropouts by Class (Girls Only)

Class Dropped Out	Frequency	Percent (%)
Class 0 (Pre-primary)	101	0.12
Class 1	2,346	2.85
Class 2	4,437	5.40
Class 3	5,702	6.94
Class 4	5,782	7.04
Class 5	17,124	20.84
Class 6	6,748	8.21
Class 7	8,195	9.97
Class 8	16,933	20.61
Class 9	6,946	8.45
Class 10	7,072	8.61
Class 11	389	0.47
Class 12	393	0.48
Other/Unknown (99)	5	0.01
Total	**82,173**	**100.00**

Notes: Sample restricted to girls identified as dropouts (`oos_dropout = 1`). Notable spikes in dropout rates are observed at Class 5 and Class 8, corresponding to the completion of Primary and Upper Primary schooling levels respectively.

Notice the structural breaks at Class 5 (20.8%) and Class 8 (20.6%). In India, these correspond to the end of Primary School and Upper Primary School. This suggests that girls are not dropping out randomly, but rather stopping education exactly when a school level finishes. This hints at either supply level constraints in access to the next level of education or demand decline due to social attitudes regarding higher levels of schooling for girls.

Table 4: Summary Statistics of Control Variables for Girls

Variable	Mean	Std. Dev.
Takes Tuition	0.151	0.358
Private School	0.225	0.418
Mother Educated	0.494	0.500
Father Educated	0.565	0.496
Pucca House	0.358	0.479
Has TV	0.428	0.495
Has Electricity	0.656	0.475
Has Pucca Road	0.717	0.450
Has Primary School	0.769	0.421
Has Middle School	0.495	0.500
Has Sec. School	0.198	0.398
Observations	3,529,506	

5. Findings

Table 6: Impact of Phase I and Phase II on Girls' Math and Reading Scores

	Math Score			Reading Score		
	Class 1	Class 2	Class 3	Class 1	Class 2	Class 3
Phase I × Post						
	0.0209	0.0125	0.0156	0.0644*	0.1035***	0.1053***
	(0.0282)	(0.0305)	(0.0322)	(0.0340)	(0.0349)	(0.0366)
Phase II × Post						
	0.0908***	0.0847**	0.0913*	0.1207***	0.2061***	0.1908***
	(0.0281)	(0.0393)	(0.0467)	(0.0315)	(0.0411)	(0.0502)
Observations	297,680	285,309	285,290	299,231	286,453	286,239
Clusters (district)	649	649	649	649	649	649
R^2	0.229	0.206	0.207	0.199	0.195	0.190
FE: District, Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Each column reports a separate regression for girls in Classes 1–3. All specifications include district and year fixed effects and are clustered at the district level. Controls include: *takes_tuition, private_school, mom_edu, dad_edu, pucca_house, has_tv, has_elec, has_road, has_prim_school, has_mid_school, has_sec_school.* Math and reading outcomes are standardized test scores.
$^{***}p < 0.01$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{\dagger}p < 0.10$

Table 7: Impact of Phase I and Phase II on Girls' Dropout Likelihood

	Dropout Class 5	Dropout Class 8
Phase I × Post		
	-0.01126	-0.00158
	(0.01138)	(0.01411)
Phase II × Post		
	0.00677	-0.00763
	(0.01366)	(0.01654)
Observations	98,099	98,099
Clusters (district)	644	644
R^2	0.0850	0.0957
Within R^2	0.0104	0.0059
FE: District, Year	Yes	Yes
Controls Included	Yes	Yes

Notes: Each column reports a separate HDFE regression with district and year fixed effects. All standard errors are clustered at the district level. Controls include: *takes_tuition, mom_edu, dad_edu, pucca_house, has_tv, has_elec, has_road, has_prim_school, has_mid_school, has_sec_school.*
Dropout outcomes are binary indicators for girls who report being out-of-school. The sample is restricted to *child_gender* = 2 and *oos_dropout* = 1.

5.1 Results and Interpretations

Table 6 reports the estimated effects of BBBP on girls' foundational learning (math and reading scores in Classes 1-3), and Table 7 reports the estimated effects of BBBP on dropout indicators for Classes 5 and 8.

We find that the Phase I × Post effects are small for math and statistically insignificant across all early grades. However, Phase I does produce measurable gains in reading, particularly for Classes 2 and 3, where the coefficients are positive and significant at conventional levels. This suggests that even the initial rollout, which was targeted at the most "gender-critical" districts, may have shifted behaviours or attitudes in ways that slightly improved girls' early reading proficiency.

The stronger pattern appears in Phase II × Post, where effects are consistently positive and statistically significant for *both* math and reading. Math scores rise by approximately 0.08-0.09 points, while reading scores increase by 0.12-0.21 points across Classes 1-3. These gains are substantial for a programme like BBBP that was centred on mass messaging and social mobilisation rather than material subsidies. We also see that the effects are stronger for reading than for math. A possible explanation is that parents can more easily support reading practice at home, such as listening to children read or encouraging them to look at books, and so awareness messages may translate more directly into changes in these behaviours. Math skills, in contrast, depend more on the quality of classroom instruction and structured teaching, which awareness campaigns alone are less likely to influence.

In contrast, our dropout regressions for Class 5 and Class 8 reveal no significant effect of either Phase I or Phase II rollout. The estimated coefficients are small in magnitude and statistically indistinguishable from zero, implying that BBBP did not alter schooling continuation decisions at key transitional grades. Thus, while BBBP may have improved early learning trajectories, it did not meaningfully alter schooling continuation for older girls - an outcome that is more heavily shaped by structural factors such as economic pressures, safety concerns, and secondary-school availability.

Overall, our results show that BBBP contributed to small but meaningful effects on early learning, especially reading, but did not shift deeper structural barriers that drive dropout.

Taken together, these patterns suggest that while awareness campaigns can influence foundational learning in early grades, they are not sufficient to overcome the deeper structural and economic barriers that shape dropout. Messaging alone is unlikely to shift high-stakes decisions such as leaving school, which depend heavily on perceived returns, safety, financial pressures, and school quality. This points to the need for more targeted and resource-intensive interventions.

5.2 Policy Implications

The findings offer several policy lessons. Firstly, we find that awareness-driven campaigns can improve foundational learning, especially reading. The learning gains, particularly in reading, indicate that behavioural messaging can help reshape parental expectations and early home-learning practices. However, the modest effects on math suggest that messaging alone cannot substitute for improvements in classroom instruction.

Secondly, meaningful and sustained improvements require pairing behavioural campaigns with supply-side or quality-enhancing interventions. Evidence shows that teacher support, remedial instruction, and better classroom resources significantly boost test scores, and combining these with norm-shifting messages can produce larger, more durable impacts (Lakshminaraya, Rashmi et al.).

Thirdly, our finding that Phase II effects are stronger and more consistent than Phase I implies that programme design and local execution play an important role. Future expansions should have policymakers evaluate which specific component of BBBP generated the largest gains - was it the media messaging, the on-ground community work, or the multisectoral coordination? Once we know that, resources can be directed toward the components that actually work.

Lastly, since BBBP did not reduce dropout likelihood in transition grades, policymakers should complement awareness efforts with interventions that lower the economic and social costs of secondary schooling (safe transport, conditional transfers for girls, improved access to secondary schools).

Together, these results show that changing norms is necessary but not sufficient. Awareness campaigns can shift early learning, but sustained educational progress for girls requires pairing behavioural tools with material improvements in schooling environments and broader social protections.

6. Conclusion

This paper set out to evaluate whether the Beti Bachao, Beti Padhao (BBBP) programme, an awareness-driven national initiative, has had a causal impact on girls' educational outcomes in

rural India. Using district-level data and a two-way fixed effects Difference-in-Differences design, we examined how BBBP's phased rollout influenced foundational learning and school continuation.

Our findings show that BBBP produced modest but meaningful improvements in early learning, particularly reading skills, with stronger effects in Phase II districts. These patterns suggest that behavioural messaging can shape parental attitudes and early home-learning environments. However, we find no evidence that BBBP reduced dropout in upper primary and middle school grades, indicating that awareness alone is insufficient to shift higher-stakes educational decisions that depend heavily on economic constraints, safety concerns, and access to quality schooling.

These results point to important policy implications: while norm-shifting campaigns can play a supportive role in improving early learning, they need to be complemented by more intensive, resource-based interventions such as teacher support, remedial programmes, and secondary-school access to generate sustained improvements in girls' educational trajectories.

There are a few caveats to our study. BBBP was not randomly assigned, so treated districts may differ systematically from others, leading to selection bias. While a DiD should be effective in controlling for this, we also could not test parallel trends, and mass-media spillovers may have weakened treatment contrasts. Moreover, while we observe impacts on learning and dropout, our data do not reveal the mechanisms behind these effects. Despite these limitations, the findings provide national-level evidence on how awareness-based interventions influence girls' education and underscore the need to pair behavioural tools with structural reforms.

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Appendix

Table 1: Summary Statistics of Outcome, Control, and Treatment

Variable	Observations	Mean	Std. Dev.
Panel A: Learning Outcomes (Girls Only)			
Class 1			
Reading Score	299,231	1.989	1.009
Math Score	297,680	1.988	0.906
Class 2			
Reading Score	286,453	2.687	1.185
Math Score	285,309	2.560	0.977
Class 3			
Reading Score	286,239	3.278	1.261
Math Score	285,290	3.026	1.050
Panel B: Control Variables (Household Level)			
Takes Tuition	3,529,506	0.151	0.358
Private School	3,529,506	0.225	0.418
Mother Educated	3,529,506	0.494	0.500
Father Educated	3,529,506	0.565	0.496
Pucca House	3,529,506	0.358	0.479
Has TV	3,529,506	0.428	0.495
Has Electricity	3,529,506	0.656	0.475
Has Pucca Road	3,529,506	0.717	0.450
Has Primary School	3,529,506	0.769	0.421
Has Middle School	3,529,506	0.495	0.500
Has Sec. School	3,529,506	0.198	0.398
Panel C: Treatment Assignment (District Level)			
Phase I District	649	0.139	0.346
Phase II District	649	0.088	0.283
Multisectoral Dist	649	0.339	0.474
Media & Advocacy	649	0.342	0.475
Any BBBP (B3P)	649	0.901	0.298

Table 2: Distribution of School Dropouts by Class (Girls Only)

Class Dropped Out	**Frequency**	**Percent (%)**
Class 0 (Pre-primary)	101	0.12
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Class 11	389	0.47
Class 12	393	0.48
Other/Unknown (99)	5	0.01
Total	**82,173**	**100.00**

Notes: Sample restricted to girls identified as dropouts (`oos_dropout = 1`). Notable spikes in dropout rates are observed at Class 5 and Class 8, corresponding to the completion of Primary and Upper Primary schooling levels respectively.

Table 3: Impact of BBBP on Reading Scores (Girls, Classes 1–3)

	(1) **Class 1**	(2) **Class 2**	(3) **Class 3**
Phase I × Post	0.0644*	0.1035***	0.1053***
	(0.0340)	(0.0349)	(0.0366)
Phase II × Post	0.1207***	0.2061***	0.1908***
	(0.0315)	(0.0411)	(0.0502)
Observations	299,231	286,453	286,239
R-squared	0.199	0.195	0.190
Number of Clusters	649	649	649
District FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Robust standard errors clustered at the district level in parentheses. Controls include tuition, private school, parental education, household assets (house type, TV, electricity), and village infrastructure (road, schools).
$^{***}p < 0.01$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{*}p < 0.1$

Table 4: Impact of BBBP on Math Scores (Girls, Classes 1–3)

	(1) **Class 1**	(2) **Class 2**	(3) **Class 3**
Phase I × Post	0.0209	0.0125	0.0156
	(0.0282)	(0.0305)	(0.0322)
Phase II × Post	0.0908***	0.0847**	0.0913*
	(0.0281)	(0.0393)	(0.0467)
Observations	297,680	285,309	285,290
R-squared	0.229	0.206	0.207
Number of Clusters	649	649	649
District FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year FE	Yes	Yes	Yes
Controls	Yes	Yes	Yes

Notes: Robust standard errors clustered at the district level in parentheses.
$^{***}p < 0.01$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{*}p < 0.1$

Table 5: Impact of BBBP on Probability of Dropout (Class 5 and Class 8)

	(1) **Dropout by Class 5**	(2) **Dropout by Class 8**
Phase I × Post	-0.0113	-0.0016
	(0.0114)	(0.0141)
Phase II × Post	0.0068	-0.0076
	(0.0137)	(0.0165)
Observations	98,099	98,099
R-squared	0.085	0.096
Number of Clusters	644	644
District FE	Yes	Yes
Year FE	Yes	Yes
Controls	Yes	Yes

Notes: Sample restricted to girls identified as dropouts. Dependent variable is a binary indicator for dropping out at the specified class level. Private school control omitted due to collinearity with dropout status. Robust standard errors clustered at the district level in parentheses.
$^{***}p < 0.01$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{*}p < 0.1$